

Strategic coexistence theory for evolutionary games

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Abstract

Evolutionary game theory and ecological coexistence theory both seek to predict the outcome of competition between biological entities, be they strategies or species, but the two fields have relied on largely separate approaches. Replicator equations provide a foundation for predicting the outcome of strategic competition, yet they do not explicitly decompose the mechanisms underlying these outcomes. Inspired by modern coexistence theory from community ecology, we develop Strategic Coexistence Theory (SCT), which translates payoff-based invasion conditions into strategic niche differences and fitness differences between any two competing strategies described by classic replicator dynamics. SCT recovers the classic classification of two-strategy games, distinguishing competitive exclusion, coexistence, and priority effects within a shared niche–fitness difference space. Applying SCT to five mechanisms for the evolution of cooperation further reveals that these mechanisms promote cooperation through distinct dynamical routes: kin selection, network reciprocity, and group selection primarily reduce fitness differences, whereas direct and indirect reciprocity destabilize competition and generate priority effects. Finally, applying SCT to microbial public-goods competition shows that nonlinear microbial growth can both stabilize and equalize competition between cooperators and defectors, allowing coexistence. Together, these results show that SCT provides a common language for comparing coexistence mechanisms across evolutionary games.

Significance statement

Evolutionary game theory provides a powerful framework for predicting the outcome of competition between strategies, including the dominance of one strategy, coexistence of multiple strategies, and bistability. However, a common framework for comparing how different mechanisms promote strategy coexistence remains elusive, even though stable polymorphisms, such as the coexistence of cooperators and defectors, are widely observed across biological systems. To address this gap, we developed Strategic Coexistence Theory (SCT), which extends Modern Coexistence Theory from community ecology to evolutionary games. Applying SCT to classic games, mechanisms of cooperation, and microbial public-goods competition shows

that seemingly similar evolutionary outcomes can arise through distinct mechanisms. This approach links ecological theory with replicator dynamics, providing a complementary tool for analyzing evolutionary games.

Introduction

Understanding the mechanisms that promote the evolutionary stability of competing strategies is a fundamental aim in evolutionary biology (Lewontin, 1961; Slobodkin, 1964; Smith and Price, 1973; Taylor and Jonker, 1978). To this end, evolutionary game theory (EGT) and replicator dynamics have provided key foundations, allowing us to predict the outcome of strategic competition through payoff inequalities, invasion criteria, and stability analysis (Schuster and Sigmund, 1983; Hofbauer and Sigmund, 1998; Cressman, 2003; Cressman and Tao, 2014). Recently, there has been growing interest in characterizing similarities between replicator dynamics and the dynamics of competing species (Gokhale and Traulsen, 2025; Tarnita and Traulsen, 2025; Allesina, 2026), building on the classical mathematical equivalence between replicator equations and generalized Lotka–Volterra models (Hofbauer, 1981; Page and Nowak, 2002). In particular, Tarnita and Traulsen (2025) recently argued that a closer synthesis between ecology and evolutionary game theory can provide new insights into ecological and evolutionary assembly, competition, and coexistence. This renewed perspective between ecological and evolutionary dynamics suggests that evolutionary games may be interpreted not only as payoff-based competition but also as problems of strategic coexistence.

Interestingly, even a simple two-strategy game can yield heterogeneous outcomes that mirror those in community ecology (Hauert, 2002; Szabó and Fath, 2007; Cooney, 2020; Tarnita and Traulsen, 2025): the dominance of a single strategy (prisoner’s dilemma and harmony games), coexistence (hawk–dove games), and bistability (stag-hunt games). Such differences in conditions that promote evolutionary stability and dominance of a single strategy and those that permit strategy coexistence indicate that EGT can be understood from the perspective of coexistence theory (Motro, 1991; Doebeli et al., 2004; Hauert and Doebeli, 2004; Doebeli and Hauert, 2005; Gore et al., 2009; Souza et al., 2009; Archetti and Scheuring, 2011; Steidinger and Bever, 2014; Tarnita and Traulsen, 2025). In fact, stable polymorphisms of evolutionary strategies are observed in microbial and other biological systems (Gore et al., 2009; Cordero et al., 2012; Kocher et al., 2018; Pollak et al., 2021; Lin et al., 2024), but a coexistence-theoretic perspective has often remained implicit. Recasting game dynamics as a coexistence problem immediately raises the following question: when two strategies coexist, does the corresponding mechanism stabilize or equalize competition (Chesson, 2000)? While EGT allows us to predict whether two strategies can coexist or not, a common framework for comparing coexistence mechanisms between competing strategies remains elusive.

Modern coexistence theory (MCT) from community ecology presents a particu-

larly useful framework for quantifying coexistence mechanisms (Chesson, 2000; Adler et al., 2007; Godoy et al., 2014; Godoy and Levine, 2014; Kraft et al., 2015; Adler et al., 2026). MCT predicts that coexistence of two competing entities, be they species or strategies, requires stabilizing niche differences to overcome average fitness differences (Chesson, 2000; Adler et al., 2007; Kraft et al., 2015). In community ecology, stabilizing niche differences represent differences in factors that limit the growth of competing species, causing each species to limit itself more than it limits its competitor (Chesson, 2000). In EGT, a strategy’s niche can be interpreted as strategic environments defined by the composition of competing strategies and the resulting interactions (Taylor and Jonker, 1978; Cressman and Tao, 2014; Tarnita and Traulsen, 2025). From the perspective of MCT, stabilizing niche differences arise when each strategy is favored under the monomorphic boundary condition created by its competitor than under the one created by itself, such that the spread of each strategy limits its own relative growth and favors the recovery of its competitor. In contrast, fitness differences represent differences in the ability of each entity to compete under the limiting environments created by its competitor (Chesson, 2000). This differs from payoff differences in EGT, which depend on the underlying strategy frequency and therefore combine both stabilizing effects caused by changes in the strategic environment and residual fitness differences that favor one strategy over another (Taylor and Jonker, 1978; Cressman and Tao, 2014; Tarnita and Traulsen, 2025).

So far, MCT has been primarily utilized for understanding species coexistence, but recent work showed that MCT can be extended beyond species competition, especially for studying pathogen strain competition, allowing one to directly quantify niche and fitness differences of competing entities, be they species or strains (Sieben et al., 2022; Park et al., 2024, 2026). Inspired by this effort, we present Strategic Coexistence Theory (SCT), which translates the invasion growth rates of competing strategies at monomorphic boundary conditions into strategic niche and fitness differences. In doing so, we apply SCT to four different case studies: classic two-strategy games, mechanisms for the evolution of cooperation, environmental stochasticity, and multiplayer public-goods games. For classic-game and stochasticity applications, we consider four different game types: Prisoner’s Dilemma, Hawk–Dove, Stag–Hunt, and Harmony. In the cooperation-mechanism application, prisoner’s dilemma serves as a common baseline for comparing five pairwise mechanisms. In contrast, the multiplayer public-goods application considers an explicit N -player game with nonlinearity.

Overall, these examples illustrate the utility of a coexistence-theoretic perspective for comparing mechanisms of strategy competition. However, since SCT is based on invasion growth rates at monomorphic boundary conditions, it does not provide a complete picture for the interior dynamics. Within this scope, SCT provides a common framework for linking coexistence theory in community ecology with evolutionary game theory.

Strategic coexistence theory

Here, we present a brief derivation of strategic coexistence theory (SCT) (Figure 1). To do so, we begin with a classic replicator equation, which allows us to model changes in the frequency of competing strategies based on their payoffs (Schuster and Sigmund, 1983; Hofbauer and Sigmund, 1998; Cressman, 2003; Cressman and Tao, 2014):

$$\frac{dx_i}{dt} = x_i(\pi_i(\mathbf{x}) - \bar{\pi}(\mathbf{x})), \quad (1)$$

where x_i represents the frequency of strategy i , $\pi_i(\mathbf{x})$ represents the payoff of strategy i for a given strategy distribution $\mathbf{x}$, and $\bar{\pi}(\mathbf{x}) = \sum_i \pi_i(\mathbf{x})x_i$ represents the average payoff. Since strategy frequencies must sum to 1 (i.e., $\sum_i x_i = 1$), a single-strategy equilibrium dominated by strategy i can be described by a unit vector $\mathbf{e}_i$, where all elements are equal to zero except for the i -th element. We use these single-strategy equilibria to define niche and fitness differences between two competing strategies i and j .

Because payoffs in many games can be negative, payoff ratios can be difficult to interpret. Thus, we work on a positive multiplicative scale by exponentiating the payoff terms:

$$W_i(\mathbf{x}) = \exp(\pi_i(\mathbf{x})). \quad (2)$$

This exponential transformation is convenient because it preserves the payoff ordering and does not alter the invasion conditions. Therefore, this allows us to compare strategic environments through ratios, as in modern coexistence theory. For convenience, we refer to $W_i(\mathbf{x})$ as the multiplicative payoff of strategy i .

First, we define the niche overlap ρ between strategies i and j as the ratio between the geometric mean of each strategy's multiplicative payoff in the strategic environment that it creates when common, $\sqrt{W_i(\mathbf{e}_i)W_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}$, and the geometric mean of each strategy's multiplicative payoff in the environment generated by its competitor, $\sqrt{W_j(\mathbf{e}_i)W_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}$. The corresponding niche difference is then given by

$$1 - \rho = 1 - \sqrt{\frac{W_i(\mathbf{e}_i)W_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}{W_j(\mathbf{e}_i)W_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}}. \quad (3)$$

When $1 - \rho > 0$, the geometric mean of the multiplicative payoffs across the two strategies is greater in competitor-generated monomorphic environments than in self-generated monomorphic environments. In other words, intraspecific competition is stronger than interspecific competition at the boundary. When $\rho > 1$, we interpret the resulting negative niche difference, $1 - \rho < 0$, as a destabilizing effect corresponding to positive frequency dependence, meaning that the strategy that is already common is favored.

Second, we define the fitness difference as the ratio between the geometric means of the multiplicative payoff of each strategy across the two single-strategy environ-

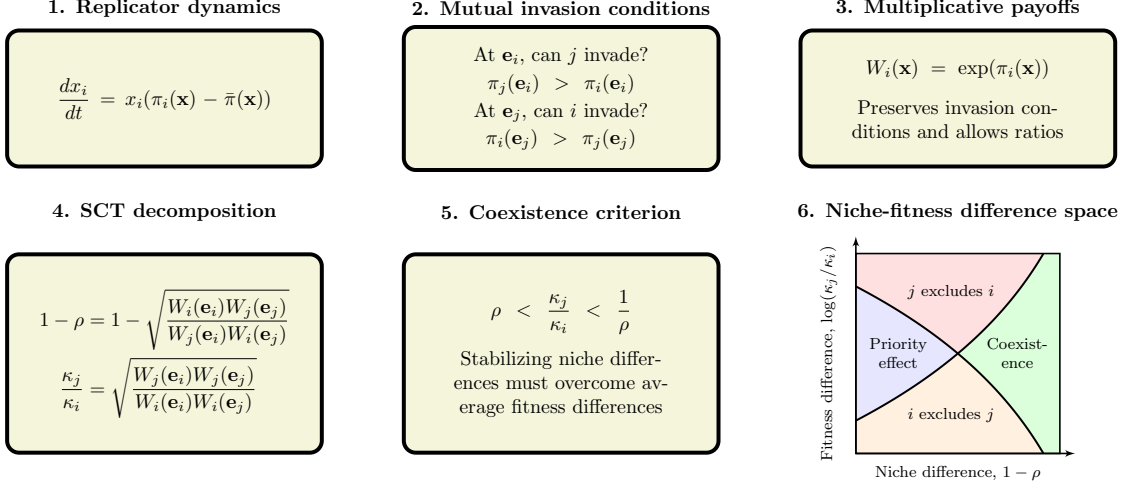


Figure 1: **A schematic diagram summarizing strategic coexistence theory.** Strategic coexistence theory decomposes pairwise replicator dynamics into stabilizing and equalizing mechanisms. Mutual invasion conditions can be rewritten on a multiplicative payoff scale, allowing us to derive strategic niche difference $1 - \rho$ and fitness difference κ_j/κ_i based on multiplicative payoff ratios. Then, the inequality $\rho < \kappa_j/\kappa_i < 1/\rho$ determines mutual invasion. We note that the exact values of niche and fitness differences are sensitive to payoff scaling, while dynamical outcomes are still preserved.

ments:

$$\frac{\kappa_j}{\kappa_i} = \sqrt{\frac{W_j(\mathbf{e}_i)W_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}{W_i(\mathbf{e}_i)W_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}}. \quad (4)$$

In other words, strategy j has an average competitive advantage over strategy i ($\kappa_j/\kappa_i > 1$) when it performs better, on average, across the environments generated by itself and its competitor.

Together, for any two strategies described by the classic replicator equation, mutual invasion requires stabilizing niche differences to overcome average fitness differences. Specifically, the condition for mutual invasion can be rewritten as (Chesson, 2000):

$$\rho < \frac{\kappa_j}{\kappa_i} < \frac{1}{\rho}. \quad (5)$$

In simple systems with monotonic interior dynamics, these boundary invasion conditions also determine the global dynamical outcome, allowing competition to be classified into coexistence, competitive-exclusion, and priority-effect regimes. However, MCT and SCT are based on invasion conditions at the boundaries and do not generally characterize nonlinear interior dynamics. Mutual invasion still guarantees at least one stable internal equilibrium, but it does not determine the number or stability of additional internal equilibria. Likewise, boundary conditions associated

with competitive exclusion or priority effects do not rule out stable internal equilibria. As we show later, nonlinear dynamics can allow stable coexistence even when a system lies in the boundary-defined competitive-exclusion regime. Therefore, when interior dynamics are nonmonotonic, we use these classifications to describe boundary invasibility rather than complete dynamical outcomes.

Despite this limitation, the mutual-invasion inequality provides a useful perspective for comparing how different mechanisms alter boundary invasibility. Notably, the inequality can be applied to any pairwise comparison between two strategies described by the classic replicator equation because ρ and κ_j/κ_i can be calculated directly from ratios of multiplicative payoffs. This provides a common framework for comparing qualitative changes in boundary invasibility across different games. Detailed derivations are provided in Supplementary Text S1.

We note that the absolute magnitudes of niche and fitness differences are sensitive to payoff scaling because they are defined on an exponentiated payoff scale. Therefore, while SCT allows us to compare different games on shared axes, we cannot compare the exact values of niche and fitness differences across different games. Nonetheless, as we show in Supplementary Text S2, the qualitative outcome of strategic competition under SCT is preserved because payoff rescaling preserves payoff orderings. Therefore, we focus on comparing qualitative outcomes from SCT, including directions of change in niche and fitness difference and resulting dynamical regimes, and refrain from making any comparisons of magnitude of niche and fitness difference values.

Classic two-strategy games

As an illustrative example, we begin with classic two-strategy games (Hauert, 2002; Szabó and Fath, 2007; Cooney, 2020; Tarnita and Traulsen, 2025), which can be described by the following payoff matrix (Figure 2A):

$$\begin{pmatrix} R & S \\ T & P \end{pmatrix}. \quad (6)$$

Here, the first and second rows represent strategies 1 and 2, respectively, and the columns represent the strategy of the interacting opponent. Writing x_1 to denote the frequency of strategy 1, the expected payoffs are

$$\pi_1(\mathbf{x}) = Rx_1 + S(1 - x_1), \quad (7)$$

$$\pi_2(\mathbf{x}) = Tx_1 + P(1 - x_1). \quad (8)$$

Thus, the dynamics can be written as

$$\frac{dx_1}{dt} = x_1(1 - x_1) [(R - T)x_1 + (S - P)(1 - x_1)]. \quad (9)$$

The signs of $T - R$ and $S - P$ determine whether each strategy can invade the other when rare. Specifically, strategy 2 can invade strategy 1 when $T > R$, whereas

strategy 1 can invade strategy 2 when $S > P$. These two invasion conditions partition the game space into four regimes (Figure 2B): prisoner's dilemma ($T > R > P > S$), hawk-dove game ($T > R, S > P$), stag-hunt game ($R > T, P > S$), and harmony game ($R > T, S > P$). In standard EGT, these outcomes are obtained by analyzing the stability of equilibrium conditions. For simple games, this analysis is straightforward.

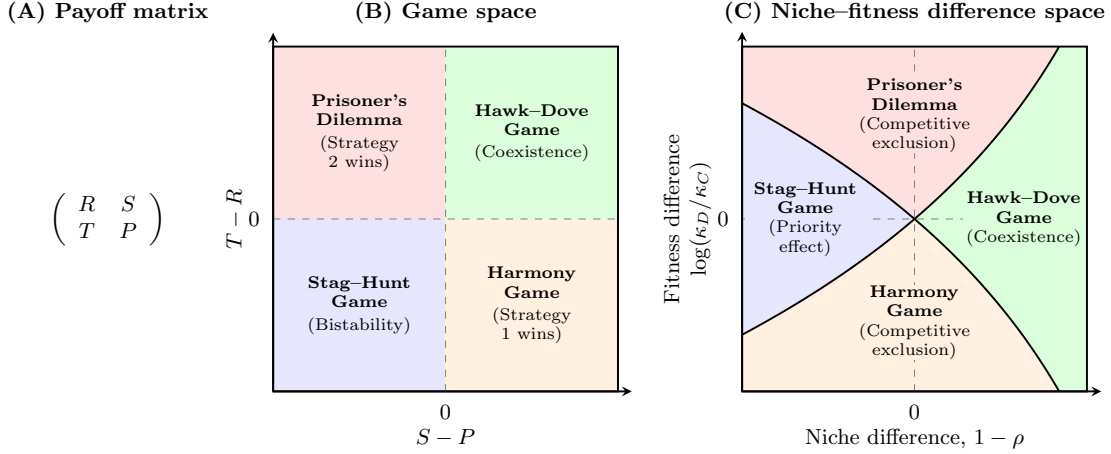


Figure 2: **Coexistence-theoretic interpretation of classic two-strategy games.** (A) General payoff matrix for a two-strategy game, where rows represent the focal strategy and columns represent the strategy of the interacting opponent. (B) Classification of four classic games based on the payoff differences $T - R$ and $S - P$. Prisoner's dilemma and harmony games lead to the dominance of one strategy; hawk-dove games allow coexistence; and stag-hunt games result in bistability. (C) Mapping of the same four games onto niche-fitness difference space. Hawk-dove games correspond to the coexistence regime, where stabilizing niche differences overcome fitness differences. Prisoner's dilemma and harmony games correspond to competitive-exclusion regimes, whereas stag-hunt games correspond to the priority-effect regime. Negative values of $1 - \rho$ indicate positive frequency dependence and destabilization. $R > P$ is assumed throughout, but this does not affect coexistence outcome in any way.

A coexistence-theoretic approach recovers the same classification but provides a different interpretation (Figure 2C). For a two-strategy game determined by this payoff matrix, the niche difference and fitness difference are given by the following set of equations (Supplementary Text S3):

$$1 - \rho = 1 - \exp\left(\frac{R + P - S - T}{2}\right), \quad (10)$$

$$\frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} = \exp\left(\frac{T + P - R - S}{2}\right). \quad (11)$$

211 As shown above, mutual invasion requires $\rho < \kappa_2/\kappa_1 < 1/\rho$, which is equivalent to
 212 $T > R$ and $S > P$. This corresponds to the hawk–dove game, in which each strategy
 213 can invade its competitor when rare and the two strategies coexist. The remaining
 214 games also have natural interpretations in niche–fitness difference space. Prisoner’s
 215 dilemma and harmony games represent competitive exclusion regimes, where one
 216 strategy has a fitness advantage that exceeds niche differences. In contrast, stag–hunt
 217 games represent a priority-effect regime, where neither strategy can invade the other
 218 and the outcome depends on initial conditions. Therefore, coexistence theory not
 219 only allows us to recover the classic results from two-strategy games but also provides
 220 new interpretations for these results in terms of niche and fitness differences. Building
 221 on this, we next apply this framework to comparing core mechanisms of cooperation.

222 Comparisons of mechanisms for the evolution of co- 223 operation

224 Understanding mechanisms that promote the evolution of cooperation is a central
 225 goal in evolutionary biology (West et al., 2007; Fletcher and Doebeli, 2008; Clutton-
 226 Brock, 2009; Kingma et al., 2014; Rakoff-Nahoum et al., 2016; Hilbe et al., 2018;
 227 Apicella and Silk, 2019; West et al., 2021; Lee et al., 2022; Palmer and Foster, 2022;
 228 Michel-Mata et al., 2024). Here, we compare five classic mechanisms for the evo-
 229 lution of cooperation using SCT (Nowak, 2006) and ask how they differ from the
 230 perspective of SCT. Specifically, we consider the following mechanisms: kin selec-
 231 tion, direct reciprocity, indirect reciprocity, network reciprocity, and group selection
 232 (Figure 3A). Following Nowak (2006), these five mechanisms are formulated as mod-
 233 ifications of a pairwise Prisoner’s Dilemma. We use the Prisoner’s Dilemma as a
 234 common baseline for comparing these specific formulations, rather than as a general
 235 model of cooperation.

236 Kin selection favors cooperation when two interacting individuals are genetic rel-
 237 atives, where the genetic relatedness r must be greater than the cost-to-benefit ratio:
 238 $r > c/b$ (Hamilton, 1964). Direct reciprocity favors cooperation when current co-
 239 operation may promote future cooperation by the same individual through repeated
 240 encounters (Trivers, 1971; Axelrod and Hamilton, 1981). In this case, the probability
 241 of repeated interaction (i.e., “next round”) must be greater than the cost-to-benefit
 242 ratio: $w > c/b$. Indirect reciprocity favors cooperation when current cooperation
 243 may promote future cooperation by different individuals through reputation (Nowak
 244 and Sigmund, 1998; Wedekind and Milinski, 2000; Nowak and Sigmund, 2005). Thus,
 245 the social acquaintanceship (i.e., the probability of knowing someone’s reputation)
 246 must be greater than the cost-to-benefit ratio: $q > c/b$. Network reciprocity favors
 247 cooperation via clustering of cooperators, requiring the benefit-to-cost ratio to be
 248 greater than the average number of neighbors: $b/c > k$ (Nowak and May, 1992;
 249 Lieberman et al., 2005). Finally, group selection favors cooperation via multilevel
 250 selection, where groups with more cooperators exhibit faster growth at the group

level even if defectors reproduce faster at the individual level (Traulsen and Nowak, 2006). This requires $b/c > 1 + (n/m)$, where n is the maximum group size and m is the number of groups. All of these mechanisms can be described by a simple 2×2 payoff matrix (Nowak, 2006), from which the corresponding niche and fitness differences can be computed using Eq. (10) and Eq. (11). Details on niche and fitness difference calculations are presented in Supplementary Text S4.

First, the prisoner’s dilemma provides a baseline scenario, where defection is evolutionarily stable (Figure 3A). From the perspective of SCT, there is complete niche overlap, and therefore defection competitively excludes cooperation (Figure 3B). Building on this, SCT shows that five mechanisms promote evolutionary stability of cooperation via different dynamical routes (Figure 3B). For example, kin selection allows the fitness of cooperation to increase as genetic relatedness r increases (Figure 3B). However, it does not affect the niche difference between cooperation and defection. Similarly, network reciprocity and group selection modulate the fitness of cooperation without causing any changes in strategic niches. In contrast, direct and indirect reciprocity destabilize competition while increasing the fitness of cooperation, thereby pushing the competition outcome towards a priority effect regime. Equivalently, these two mechanisms promote bistability of defection and cooperation.

SCT further reveals another difference between direct and indirect reciprocity. Direct reciprocity remains within the priority-effect regime as w reaches 1, whereas indirect reciprocity reaches the boundary between the priority-effect and competitive-exclusion regimes at $q = 1$ (Supplementary Text S4).

We note that none of these mechanisms allow coexistence of cooperation and defection. In many biological systems, such coexistence is often observed (Gore et al., 2009; Cordero et al., 2012; Kocher et al., 2018; Pollak et al., 2021; Lin et al., 2024). Therefore, we move on to the next example, where environmental stochasticity can promote coexistence of cooperators and defectors.

Can stochasticity prevent coexistence?

So far, we have focused on simple deterministic games. However, many ecological and evolutionary processes are intrinsically stochastic. Recently, Wang et al. (2025) showed that environmental fluctuations can promote coexistence in games that would otherwise lead to competitive exclusion in a deterministic environment. From the perspective of SCT, this suggests that stochasticity can stabilize competition by promoting the recovery of strategies when rare. Interestingly, Wang et al. (2025) also showed that stochasticity can generate bistable coexistence and multiple internal equilibria. Thus, although stochasticity can stabilize competition near the boundaries, it can also generate destabilizing frequency dependence in the interior. This immediately raises the question of whether stochasticity can generate sufficiently strong positive frequency dependence to destabilize competition, thus pushing the system out of the coexistence regime. Here, we use SCT to separate these effects and

(A)

Prisoner's dilemma	Kin selection
$\begin{pmatrix} b-c & -c \\ b & 0 \end{pmatrix}$	$\begin{pmatrix} (b-c)(1+r) & br-c \\ b-r & 0 \end{pmatrix}$
Direct reciprocity	Indirect reciprocity
$\begin{pmatrix} (b-c)/(1-w) & -c \\ b & 0 \end{pmatrix}$	$\begin{pmatrix} b-c & -c(1-q) \\ b(1-q) & 0 \end{pmatrix}$
Network reciprocity	Group selection
$\begin{pmatrix} b-c & H-c \\ b-H & 0 \end{pmatrix}$	$\begin{pmatrix} (b-c)(m+n) & (b-c)m-cn \\ bn & 0 \end{pmatrix}$

(B)

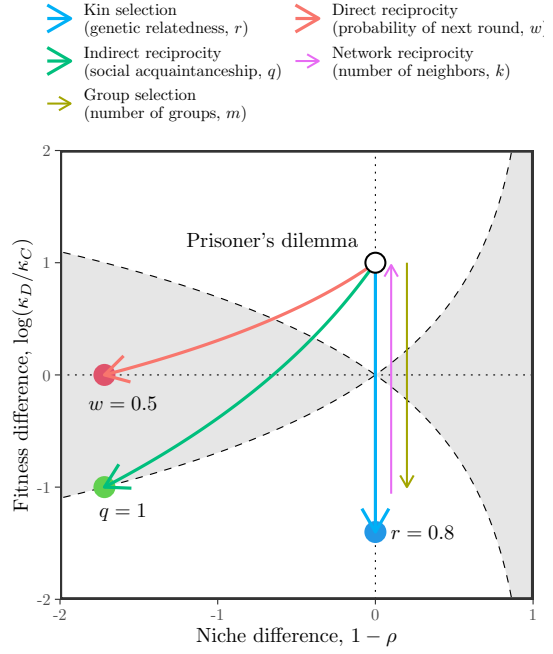


Figure 3: **Qualitative comparisons of five mechanisms for the evolution of cooperation using SCT.** (A) Payoff matrices for the baseline scenario (prisoner's dilemma) and five mechanisms for the evolution of cooperation (Nowak, 2006). Prisoner's dilemma is characterized by the benefit for the recipient b and the cost for the donor c . Network reciprocity is parameterized based on $H = [(b-c)k - 2c]/[(k+1)(k-2)]$. Parameters for all other mechanisms are described in panel B. (B) Changes in niche and fitness differences driven by each mechanism. Each arrow represents the direction of change as we increase the corresponding parameter, indicated in figure legends. Note that kin selection, network reciprocity, and group selection all result in changes in fitness difference without causing any changes in niche difference. Therefore, we indicate the direction of change for network reciprocity and group selection separately to avoid overlapping arrows. For simplicity, we focus on the effect of number of groups m for group selection; increasing the number of maximum group size n has the opposite effect (Supplementary Text S4). Across all models, we assume $b = 3$ and $c = 1$. Because SCT decompositions depend on positive payoff scaling, exact values of niche and fitness difference (e.g., arrow lengths, slopes, and distances from regime boundaries) should not be compared across mechanisms.

291 clarify whether stochasticity stabilizes or destabilizes strategic competition (Supple-
 292 mentary Text S5).

293 Following Wang et al. (2025), we consider a 2×2 game in the presence of envi-

294 ronmental noise. The stochastic payoff matrix is given by

$$\begin{pmatrix} R & S \\ T & P \end{pmatrix} + \frac{\zeta}{\sqrt{s}} \begin{pmatrix} \sigma_R & \sigma_S \\ \sigma_T & \sigma_P \end{pmatrix}, \quad (12)$$

295 where the first matrix represents deterministic payoffs, ζ represents a noise term
 296 with zero mean and unit variance, and the second matrix determines the intensity
 297 of environmental stochasticity. Assuming weak selection $s \ll 1$, the evolution of
 298 two competing strategies in a large population can be described by the following
 299 equation:

$$\frac{dx}{dt} = sx(1-x) \left(\pi_C - \pi_D + \left(\frac{1}{2} - x \right) (\sigma_C - \sigma_D)^2 \right), \quad (13)$$

300 where $\pi_C = Rx + S(1-x)$ and $\pi_D = Tx + P(1-x)$ and $\sigma_C = \sigma_R x + \sigma_S(1-x)$ and
 301 $\sigma_D = \sigma_T x + \sigma_P(1-x)$. After rescaling time as $\tau = st$, the invasion growth rates of
 302 each strategy when rare can be written as:

$$r_C = S - P + \frac{1}{2}(\sigma_S - \sigma_P)^2, \quad (14)$$

$$r_D = T - R + \frac{1}{2}(\sigma_T - \sigma_R)^2. \quad (15)$$

303 This shows that invasion growth rates under environmental stochasticity will be
 304 greater than or equal to their deterministic counterparts, meaning that environmental
 305 stochasticity at the boundaries is intrinsically stabilizing.

306 Then, an extended SCT decomposition shows that niche overlap and fitness dif-
 307 ference can be written as:

$$\rho = \exp \left(\frac{R + P - S - T}{2} - \frac{(\sigma_R - \sigma_T)^2 + (\sigma_S - \sigma_P)^2}{4} \right) \quad (16)$$

$$\frac{\kappa_D}{\kappa_C} = \exp \left(\frac{T + P - R - S}{2} + \frac{(\sigma_R - \sigma_T)^2 - (\sigma_S - \sigma_P)^2}{4} \right) \quad (17)$$

308 Writing $\hat{\rho}$ and $\hat{\kappa}_D/\hat{\kappa}_C$ to denote niche overlap and fitness difference in the absence of
 309 stochasticity and taking logs of both sides for convenience, we have:

$$\Delta \log \rho = \log \rho - \log \hat{\rho} = -\frac{(\sigma_R - \sigma_T)^2 + (\sigma_S - \sigma_P)^2}{4} \quad (18)$$

$$\Delta \log \frac{\kappa_D}{\kappa_C} = \log \frac{\kappa_D}{\kappa_C} - \log \frac{\hat{\kappa}_D}{\hat{\kappa}_C} = \frac{(\sigma_R - \sigma_T)^2 - (\sigma_S - \sigma_P)^2}{4}. \quad (19)$$

310 Therefore, stochasticity reduces niche overlap and increases niche difference. In con-
 311 trast, stochasticity can either amplify or reduce fitness differences depending on which
 312 strategy's invasion rate is more strongly affected by environmental fluctuations. No-
 313 tably, changes in fitness difference driven by environmental stochasticity will always
 314 be bounded by those in niche overlap:

$$\Delta \log \rho \leq \Delta \log \frac{\kappa_D}{\kappa_C} \leq -\Delta \log \rho \quad (20)$$

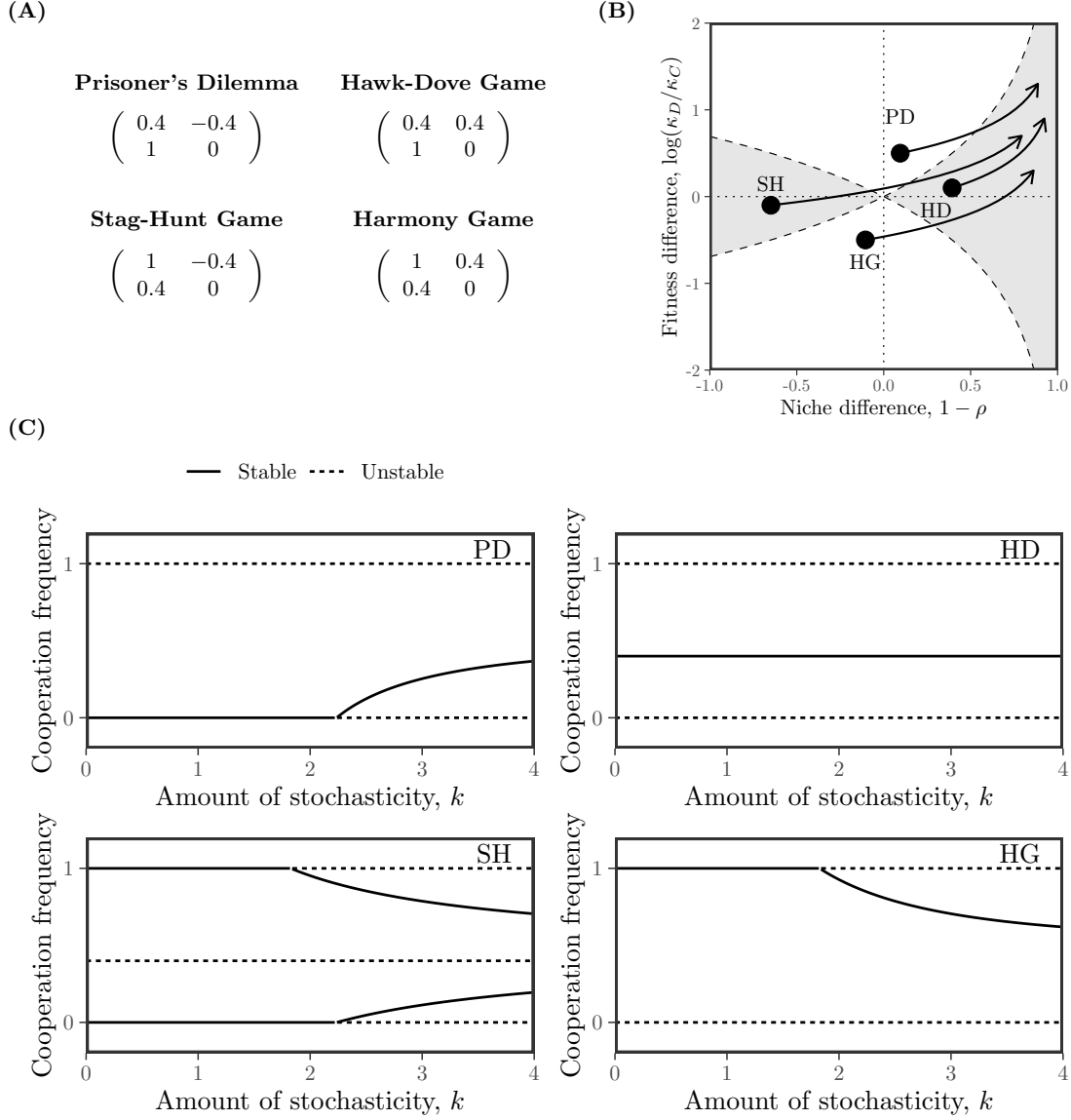


Figure 4: **Effects of environmental stochasticity on strategic competition.** (A) Assumed deterministic payoff structures across four scenarios. Environmental stochasticity is assumed to be proportional to these payoffs, scaled by a term k . (B) Arrows indicate the direction of changes in dynamical regime as the amount of stochasticity k increases. (C) Bifurcation diagrams under each scenario as a function of k . Solid and dashed lines represent stable and unstable equilibria, respectively.

315 This result implies that environmental stochasticity cannot generate sufficient fitness
 316 difference to push the system out of the coexistence regime.

317 As an example, consider a scenario where the amount of stochasticity is assumed

318 to be proportional to deterministic payoffs (Wang et al., 2025):

$$\begin{pmatrix} \sigma_R & \sigma_S \\ \sigma_T & \sigma_P \end{pmatrix} = k \begin{pmatrix} R & S \\ T & P \end{pmatrix}. \quad (21)$$

319 Following previous case studies, we consider four deterministic payoff structures (Fig-
 320 ure 4A): Prisoner’s Dilemma (PD), Hawk-Dove Game (HD), Stag-Hunt Game (SH)
 321 and Harmony Game (HG). Across all these examples, stochasticity eventually pushes
 322 the system inside the mutual invasion regime (Figure 4B). Notably, changes in dy-
 323 namical regimes predicted by SCT accurately capture bifurcations occurring at the
 324 boundaries (Figure 4C): at sufficiently large k , both boundary equilibria are unstable
 325 in all four games. Notably, for the SH game, the system begins from the priority
 326 effect regime and enters the competitive exclusion regime before eventually entering
 327 the mutual invasion regime (Figure 4B). Consequently, $x = 1$ (pure cooperation)
 328 becomes unstable first, and then $x = 0$ (pure defection) also becomes unstable.

329 This example also illustrates an important limitation of the original MCT as well
 330 as its extension, SCT. Since MCT and SCT solely rely on boundary conditions, they
 331 cannot predict the presence of multiple internal equilibria or their stability. In the SH
 332 example, there is an unstable internal equilibrium across all ranges of k we consider
 333 (Figure 4C). When the system enters the competitive-exclusion regime, an additional
 334 stable internal equilibrium appears, allowing coexistence. Furthermore, when mutual
 335 invasion is allowed, two stable coexistence equilibria are present. Therefore, while
 336 MCT and SCT accurately capture the behavior at the boundary via invasibility,
 337 they do not fully characterize the interior dynamics or all conditions under which
 338 coexistence is possible.

339 Evolution of cooperation in multiplayer, nonlinear 340 public goods games

341 Previous examples focused on evolutionary games based on two-player interactions
 342 but real world behaviors, especially cooperation, depend on interactions between
 343 multiple players (Motro, 1991; Archetti and Scheuring, 2012). In particular, co-
 344 operators can contribute to shared public goods, from which other individuals can
 345 benefit. As our final study, we consider an N-player public-goods game to investigate
 346 the effects of multiplayer interaction on strategy competition. In doing so, we also
 347 consider the effect of nonlinear public goods and ask when nonlinearity can stabilize
 348 competition.

349 To model the evolution of cooperation under multiplayer interactions, we begin
 350 by assuming that every individual receives the same amount of benefit $\beta(i)$ which
 351 increases monotonically with the number of cooperators i , and that cooperation
 352 incurs a constant cost $c > 0$. Assuming that each individual interacts with $N - 1$
 353 other selected individuals, the average payoff for cooperators $\pi_C(x)$ and defectors

354 $\pi_D(x)$ depends on the probability $f_j(x)$ of finding j cooperators in the group, given
 355 x proportion of cooperators in the population (Archetti and Scheuring, 2012):

$$\pi_C(x) = \sum_{j=0}^{N-1} f_j(x) \beta(j+1) - c \quad (22)$$

$$\pi_D(x) = \sum_{j=0}^{N-1} f_j(x) \beta(j) \quad (23)$$

356 Assuming random, homogeneous mixing in a large population, the probability $f_j(x)$
 357 follows a binomial distribution:

$$\pi_C(x) = \sum_{j=0}^{N-1} \binom{N-1}{j} x^j (1-x)^{N-1-j} \beta(j+1) - c \quad (24)$$

$$\pi_D(x) = \sum_{j=0}^{N-1} \binom{N-1}{j} x^j (1-x)^{N-1-j} \beta(j) \quad (25)$$

358 The resulting replicator equation corresponds to:

$$\frac{dx}{dt} = x(1-x)G(x), \quad (26)$$

359 where $G(x) = \pi_C(x) - \pi_D(x)$ represents the payoff difference.

360 While this game consists of interactions between multiple individuals, from the
 361 perspective of SCT, there are still two strategies competing. Thus, we can compute
 362 niche overlap ρ and fitness difference κ_D/κ_C using standard SCT, which in turn can
 363 be simplified in terms of payoff differences at the boundary:

$$\rho = \exp\left(\frac{\pi_C(1) + \pi_D(0) - \pi_C(0) - \pi_D(1)}{2}\right) = \exp\left(\frac{G(1) - G(0)}{2}\right) \quad (27)$$

$$\frac{\kappa_D}{\kappa_C} = \exp\left(\frac{\pi_D(0) + \pi_D(1) - \pi_C(1) - \pi_C(0)}{2}\right) = \exp\left(-\frac{G(1) + G(0)}{2}\right). \quad (28)$$

364 Here, the payoff values at the boundary correspond to:

$$G(0) = \beta(1) - \beta(0) - c \quad (29)$$

$$G(1) = \beta(N) - \beta(N-1) - c \quad (30)$$

365 Finally, mutual invasion at the boundary requires:

$$\rho < \frac{\kappa_D}{\kappa_C} < \frac{1}{\rho}. \quad (31)$$

366 This expression can be equivalently written as:

$$G(1) < 0 < G(0) \iff \beta(N) - \beta(N-1) < c < \beta(1) - \beta(0). \quad (32)$$

This formulation shows that mutual invasion is possible only when the marginal benefit generated by the first cooperator exceeds that generated by the N th cooperator, with the cost of cooperation lying between these two marginal benefits.

We can now draw three conclusions from this observation. First, when the benefit of public good $\beta(i)$ increases linearly with i (thus $\beta(1) - \beta(0) = \beta(N) - \beta(N - 1)$), then there is complete niche overlap because $G(1) = G(0)$. In this case, cooperators competitively exclude defectors when the marginal benefit $\beta(1) - \beta(0)$ is greater than the cost c , and defectors competitively exclude cooperators when the marginal benefit is smaller than the cost. Stable coexistence becomes impossible. Second, when the benefit of public good $\beta(i)$ is a concave, increasing function of i (i.e., $d\beta/di > 0$ and $d^2\beta/di^2 < 0$), we have $\beta(1) - \beta(0) > \beta(N) - \beta(N - 1)$ (Motro, 1991). This means that nonlinearity can generate niche difference and allow coexistence when

$$\beta(N) - \beta(N - 1) < c < \beta(1) - \beta(0) \quad (33)$$

This generalizes the result of Gore et al. (2009), showing that the effect of concave nonlinearity on coexistence is robust to multiplayer extension (see Supplementary Text S6 and Figure S1 for detailed analyses). Third, when the benefit of public good $\beta(i)$ is a convex, increasing function of i (i.e., $d\beta/di > 0$ and $d^2\beta/di^2 > 0$), we have $\beta(1) - \beta(0) < \beta(N) - \beta(N - 1)$ (Motro, 1991). In this case, nonlinearity can allow bistability of two boundary monomorphic equilibria and generate priority effect when

$$\beta(1) - \beta(0) < c < \beta(N) - \beta(N - 1). \quad (34)$$

Therefore, SCT shows that nonlinearity can either stabilize or destabilize strategic coexistence depending on the shape of nonlinearity. Accordingly, $G(x)$ decreases monotonically for concave benefits and increases monotonically for convex benefits, so these cases can have at most one internal equilibrium.

We note that this multiplayer game can also permit multiple internal equilibria. For example, Archetti and Scheuring (2012) considers a scenario where $\beta(t)$ follows a sigmoid function, illustrating that coexistence between cooperators and defectors is possible even when defectors have higher payoffs at both boundaries. In such cases, SCT will be able to capture invasibility at the boundary but will not be able to predict internal dynamics, as we show in the previous case study.

Discussion

Standard evolutionary game theory and replicator equations provide powerful tools for predicting the outcome of strategy competition, including strategic dominance, coexistence, and bistability (Motro, 1991; Doebeli et al., 2004; Hauert and Doebeli, 2004; Doebeli and Hauert, 2005; Gore et al., 2009; Souza et al., 2009; Archetti and Scheuring, 2011; Steidinger and Bever, 2014; Tarnita and Traulsen, 2025). However, these outcomes are typically understood by analyzing payoff differences within individual games, which makes it difficult to compare coexistence mechanisms across

models. Building on Chesson’s Modern Coexistence Theory from community ecology (Chesson, 2000), we developed a strategic coexistence theory (SCT) that allows us to decompose strategy competition at the invasion boundaries in terms of stabilizing niche differences and fitness differences.

To demonstrate the utility of SCT, we considered four case studies. First, the analysis of classic two-strategy games showed that SCT recovers the original classification for these classic games, highlighting the similarities between evolutionary games and community ecology (Hauert, 2002; Szabó and Fath, 2007; Cooney, 2020; Tarnita and Traulsen, 2025). Second, we compared different mechanisms for the evolution of cooperation, which showed that each mechanism promotes cooperation via different dynamical routes (Nowak, 2006). Kin selection, network reciprocity, and group selection primarily affect the fitness difference between cooperation and defection, whereas direct and indirect reciprocity can destabilize competition and generate priority effects. Third, we considered the effect of environmental stochasticity on strategy competition, showing that stochasticity cannot destabilize competition. Finally, a case study of multiplayer, public-goods games showed that nonlinear public benefit can either stabilize or destabilize competition. The final two applications also revealed an important limitation of analyses based on invasion growth rates at monomorphic boundary conditions: they are unable to predict the number or stability of interior equilibria. Rather than replacing standard EGT analysis, SCT provides a common framework for comparing how different mechanisms alter boundary invasibility by changes in strategic niche and fitness differences.

There are several limitations to SCT. First, similar to MCT from community ecology, SCT only allows for comparisons of pairwise strategies and therefore cannot determine the outcomes of games with more than two strategies (Chesson, 2000). Second, the exact values of strategic niche and fitness differences are sensitive to payoff scaling. SCT therefore supports quantitative comparisons only when models share a justified payoff normalization. Without such normalization, comparisons are restricted to qualitative changes in dynamical regimes, directions, and boundary crossings. Third, we focused on classic replicator equations, but Tarnita and Traulsen (2025) recently pointed out that these classic formulations implicitly ignore differences in intrinsic growth rates. In such cases, replicator equations may fail to predict the outcome of competition (Tarnita and Traulsen, 2025), and a full Lotka-Volterra model is needed to describe the abundances, rather than frequencies, of strategies. Thus, SCT inherits the same assumptions as the classic replicator framework: it is most appropriate when strategy competition can be described in terms of relative frequencies alone (Tarnita and Traulsen, 2025). When strategies differ intrinsically in growth, MCT may be required instead to tease apart mechanisms of strategy coexistence. Finally, we have focused on simple examples to illustrate the utility of SCT, but many games involve additional complexities, including population structure (Nowak et al., 2010), stochasticity (Wang et al., 2025; Bodin et al., 2026), and explicit ecological feedback (Tarnita and Traulsen, 2025). Extending SCT to these settings will be necessary to determine how broadly stabilizing and equalizing

447 mechanisms can be compared across evolutionary games.

448 In conclusion, SCT provides a bridge between evolutionary game theory and
449 community ecology, allowing strategy competition to be understood from the per-
450 spective of coexistence theory. Therefore, rather than replacing existing EGT or
451 replicator-dynamics frameworks, SCT provides a complementary tool for teasing
452 apart the coexistence mechanisms underlying evolutionary games. More broadly,
453 our study builds on recent efforts to extend MCT beyond species competition (Park
454 et al., 2024, 2026), providing a foundation for building unifying coexistence theory
455 for competing entities, including species, pathogen strains, and behavioral strategies.

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463 **Competing interests**

464 The authors declare no competing interest.

465 **Data availability**

466 All data and code are stored in a publicly available GitHub repository (<https://github.com/parklab-snu/coexistence-strategy>).
467

468 Supplementary Text

469 S1 Derivation of the strategic coexistence theory

470 To derive strategic coexistence theory (SCT), we begin with replicator equations:

$$\frac{dx_i}{dt} = x_i(\pi_i(\mathbf{x}) - \bar{\pi}(\mathbf{x})), \quad (\text{S1})$$

471 where x_i represents the frequency of strategy i , π_i represents the payoff of strategy
 472 i , and $\bar{\pi}$ represents the average payoff. Then, the mutual invasion condition for two
 473 competing strategies i and j can be written as

$$\pi_j(\mathbf{e}_j) < \pi_i(\mathbf{e}_j), \quad (\text{S2})$$

$$\pi_i(\mathbf{e}_i) < \pi_j(\mathbf{e}_i). \quad (\text{S3})$$

474 These inequalities will be preserved when we exponentiate the payoffs, $W_i(\mathbf{x}) =$
 475 $\exp(\pi_i(\mathbf{x}))$:

$$W_j(\mathbf{e}_j) < W_i(\mathbf{e}_j), \quad (\text{S4})$$

$$W_i(\mathbf{e}_i) < W_j(\mathbf{e}_i). \quad (\text{S5})$$

476 Rearranging, we obtain the following inequality:

$$\frac{W_i(\mathbf{e}_i)}{W_j(\mathbf{e}_i)} < 1 < \frac{W_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}{W_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}. \quad (\text{S6})$$

477 By multiplying $\sqrt{\frac{W_j(\mathbf{e}_i)W_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}{W_i(\mathbf{e}_i)W_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}}$ on both sides, we obtain:

$$\sqrt{\frac{W_i(\mathbf{e}_i)W_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}{W_j(\mathbf{e}_i)W_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}} < \sqrt{\frac{W_j(\mathbf{e}_i)W_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}{W_i(\mathbf{e}_i)W_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}} < \sqrt{\frac{W_j(\mathbf{e}_i)W_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}{W_i(\mathbf{e}_i)W_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}} \quad (\text{S7})$$

478 Thus, by defining niche overlap ρ and fitness difference κ_j/κ_i as follows,

$$\rho = \sqrt{\frac{W_i(\mathbf{e}_i)W_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}{W_j(\mathbf{e}_i)W_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}}, \quad (\text{S8})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_j}{\kappa_i} = \sqrt{\frac{W_j(\mathbf{e}_i)W_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}{W_i(\mathbf{e}_i)W_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}}, \quad (\text{S9})$$

479 we obtain the following inequality that defines conditions for mutual invasion and
 480 long-term coexistence of two competing strategies:

$$\rho < \frac{\kappa_j}{\kappa_i} < \frac{1}{\rho}. \quad (\text{S10})$$

481 S2 Niche and fitness difference payoff scaling

482 Consider a classic replicator equation:

$$\frac{dx_i}{dt} = x_i(\pi_i(\mathbf{x}) - \bar{\pi}(\mathbf{x})), \quad (\text{S11})$$

483 where x_i represents the frequency of strategy i , π_i represents the payoff of strategy
484 i , and $\bar{\pi}$ represents the average payoff. In this case, multiplying the payoffs by a
485 constant $s > 0$ only changes time and does not affect the overall dynamics:

$$\frac{dx_i}{dt} = x_i(\pi'_i(\mathbf{x}) - \bar{\pi}'(\mathbf{x})) \quad (\text{S12})$$

$$= sx_i(\pi_i(\mathbf{x}) - \bar{\pi}(\mathbf{x})), \quad (\text{S13})$$

486 where $\pi'_i(\mathbf{x}) = s\pi_i(\mathbf{x})$ is the scaled payoff. Then, the multiplicative payoff corresponds
487 to $W'_i(\mathbf{x}) = \exp(s\pi_i) = W_i(\mathbf{x})^s$.

488 If we try to calculate niche overlap and fitness difference based on the scaled
489 payoffs, we get:

$$\rho' = \sqrt{\frac{W'_i(\mathbf{e}_i)W'_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}{W'_j(\mathbf{e}_i)W'_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}}, \quad (\text{S14})$$

$$= \left(\sqrt{\frac{W_i(\mathbf{e}_i)W_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}{W_j(\mathbf{e}_i)W_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}} \right)^s, \quad (\text{S15})$$

$$= \rho^s \quad (\text{S16})$$

$$\frac{\kappa'_j}{\kappa'_i} = \sqrt{\frac{W'_j(\mathbf{e}_i)W'_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}{W'_i(\mathbf{e}_i)W'_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}}, \quad (\text{S17})$$

$$= \left(\sqrt{\frac{W_j(\mathbf{e}_i)W_j(\mathbf{e}_j)}{W_i(\mathbf{e}_i)W_i(\mathbf{e}_j)}} \right)^s, \quad (\text{S18})$$

$$= \left(\frac{\kappa_j}{\kappa_i} \right)^s \quad (\text{S19})$$

490 This implies that the exact values of niche and fitness difference are sensitive to
491 payoff scaling and are not intrinsic properties of a replicator system.

492 Nonetheless, the inequality for mutual invasion condition still holds under payoff
493 scaling:

$$\rho < \frac{\kappa_j}{\kappa_i} < \frac{1}{\rho} \iff \rho^s < \left(\frac{\kappa_j}{\kappa_i} \right)^s < \frac{1}{\rho^s}. \quad (\text{S20})$$

494 Furthermore, boundary conditions for complete niche overlap ($\rho = \rho' = 1$) and com-
495 plete niche difference ($\rho = \rho' = 0$) are preserved. Moreover, the direction of changes
496 in fitness and niche difference is also preserved under payoff scaling. Specifically, for

parameter θ , we have:

$$\frac{d\rho'}{d\theta} = s\rho^{s-1} \frac{d\rho}{d\theta} \quad (\text{S21})$$

$$\frac{d}{d\theta} \left(\frac{\kappa'_j}{\kappa'_i} \right) = s \left(\frac{\kappa_j}{\kappa_i} \right)^{s-1} \frac{d}{d\theta} \left(\frac{\kappa_j}{\kappa_i} \right). \quad (\text{S22})$$

Since ρ and κ_j/κ_i are always positive, directional sensitivities of ρ and κ_j/κ_i to parameter θ are preserved. Similarly, directional sensitivities of $1 - \rho$ to θ are preserved:

$$\frac{d(1 - \rho')}{d\theta} = s\rho^{s-1} \frac{d(1 - \rho)}{d\theta} \quad (\text{S23})$$

Therefore, we focus on comparisons of qualitative outcomes from SCT and refrain from making any comparisons of magnitude of niche and fitness difference values.

S3 Applications to classic two-strategy games

Consider a two-strategy game described by the following payoff matrix:

$$\begin{pmatrix} R & S \\ T & P \end{pmatrix}. \quad (\text{S24})$$

There are four classic games that we can define from this simple payoff matrix: prisoner's dilemma ($T > R > P > S$), hawk-dove game ($T > R, S > P$), stag-hunt game ($R > T, P > S$), and harmony game ($R > T, S > P$). Here, we show that each game corresponds to a distinct region in the niche-fitness difference space under SCT.

To do so, we first begin by deriving expressions for niche overlap ρ and fitness difference κ_j/κ_i . Writing x_1 to denote the frequency of strategy 1, the expected payoff for each strategy corresponds to:

$$\pi_1(\mathbf{x}) = Rx_1 + S(1 - x_1), \quad (\text{S25})$$

$$\pi_2(\mathbf{x}) = Tx_1 + P(1 - x_1). \quad (\text{S26})$$

Then, multiplicative payoffs for each strategy when rare can be written as:

$$W_1(1) = \exp(R) \quad (\text{S27})$$

$$W_1(0) = \exp(S) \quad (\text{S28})$$

$$W_2(1) = \exp(T) \quad (\text{S29})$$

$$W_2(0) = \exp(P) \quad (\text{S30})$$

Therefore, we have:

$$\rho = \exp \left(\frac{R + P - S - T}{2} \right), \quad (\text{S31})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} = \exp \left(\frac{T + P - R - S}{2} \right). \quad (\text{S32})$$

514 As before, SCT allows us to predict the mutual invasion of two strategy using the
 515 following inequality:

$$\rho < \frac{\kappa_j}{\kappa_i} < \frac{1}{\rho}. \quad (\text{S33})$$

516 Then, simple algebra reveals that each condition in mutual invasion inequality
 517 can be equivalently described by the payoff inequality:

$$\rho < \frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} \iff R < T \quad (\text{S34})$$

$$\rho > \frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} \iff R > T \quad (\text{S35})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} < \frac{1}{\rho} \iff P < S \quad (\text{S36})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} > \frac{1}{\rho} \iff P > S \quad (\text{S37})$$

518 These inequalities then allow us to classify outcomes of two-strategy games from the
 519 perspective of SCT. Note that the inequality between R and P does not affect the
 520 outcome.

521 **S4 Applications to mechanisms for the evolution of coopera-** 522 **tion**

523 We consider five mechanisms for the evolution of cooperation, all of which can be
 524 represented as a simple 2×2 payoff matrix (Nowak, 2006). Here, we go through each
 525 mechanism and derive measures for niche and fitness differences.

526 **Prisoner's dilemma.** Here, we consider a special case of Prisoner's dilemma
 527 which can be described by the following payoff matrix:

$$\begin{pmatrix} b - c & -c \\ b & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad (\text{S38})$$

528 where b represents the benefit for the recipient and c represents cost for the donor.
 529 In this case, the niche and fitness differences correspond to:

$$1 - \rho = 0 \quad (\text{S39})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} = \exp(c). \quad (\text{S40})$$

530 Therefore, as long as the cost is greater than zero, prisoner's dilemma always results
 531 in the competitive exclusion of cooperation.

532 **Kin selection.** Kin selection can be described by the following payoff matrix:

$$\begin{pmatrix} (b - c)(1 + r) & br - c \\ b - rc & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad (\text{S41})$$

where r represents the genetic relatedness. In this case, the niche and fitness differences correspond to:

$$1 - \rho = 0 \quad (\text{S42})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} = \exp(c - br). \quad (\text{S43})$$

Therefore, defection will exclude cooperation when $c > br$. Equivalently, cooperation will be favored when $r > c/b$, which recovers the classic result.

Direct reciprocity. Direct reciprocity can be described by the following payoff matrix:

$$\begin{pmatrix} (b-c)/(1-w) & -c \\ b & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad (\text{S44})$$

where w represents the probability of next round. In this case, the niche and fitness differences correspond to:

$$1 - \rho = 1 - \exp\left(\frac{(b-c)/(1-w) + c - b}{2}\right) \quad (\text{S45})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} = \exp\left(\frac{b + c - (b-c)/(1-w)}{2}\right). \quad (\text{S46})$$

Therefore, defection will exclude cooperation when

$$\rho < \frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} \quad (\text{S47})$$

$$\iff \exp\left(\frac{(b-c)/(1-w) + c - b}{2}\right) < \exp\left(\frac{b + c - (b-c)/(1-w)}{2}\right) \quad (\text{S48})$$

$$\iff bw < c \quad (\text{S49})$$

However, note that the following inequality holds whenever $c > 0$:

$$\frac{1}{\rho} < \frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1}. \quad (\text{S50})$$

Therefore, when $w > c/b$, we will have

$$\frac{1}{\rho} < \frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} < \rho, \quad (\text{S51})$$

which implies priority effect (equivalently, bistability). Even as $w \rightarrow 1^-$, this inequality holds and therefore, cooperation cannot competitively exclude defection.

Indirect reciprocity. Indirect reciprocity can be described by the following payoff matrix:

$$\begin{pmatrix} b-c & -c(1-q) \\ b(1-q) & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad (\text{S52})$$

where q represents social acquaintanceship. In this case, the niche and fitness differences correspond to:

$$1 - \rho = 1 - \exp\left(\frac{(b - c)q}{2}\right), \quad (\text{S53})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} = \exp\left(\frac{2c - (b + c)q}{2}\right). \quad (\text{S54})$$

In this case, the condition for the dominance of defection (and therefore competitive exclusion of cooperation) can be written as:

$$\rho < \frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} \quad (\text{S55})$$

$$\iff bq < c \quad (\text{S56})$$

Moreover, the following inequality always holds as long as $c > 0$.

$$\frac{1}{\rho} < \frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1}, \quad (\text{S57})$$

which implies that coexistence between cooperation and defection is not possible. Therefore, when $q < c/b$, then defection will competitively exclude cooperation. Otherwise, the system will enter the priority-effect regime.

Interestingly, when $q \rightarrow 1$, we have

$$\rho = \exp\left(\frac{b - c}{2}\right) \quad (\text{S58})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} = \exp\left(\frac{c - b}{2}\right) \quad (\text{S59})$$

$$\frac{1}{\rho} = \exp\left(\frac{c - b}{2}\right) \quad (\text{S60})$$

$$(\text{S61})$$

In other words, the following inequality will hold:

$$\frac{1}{\rho} = \frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} < \rho \quad (\text{S62})$$

Network reciprocity. Network reciprocity can be described by the following payoff matrix:

$$\begin{pmatrix} b - c & H - c \\ b - H & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad (\text{S63})$$

where $H = [(b - c)k - 2c]/[(k + 1)(k - 2)]$ and k represents the number of neighbors. In this case, the niche and fitness differences correspond to:

$$1 - \rho = 0, \quad (\text{S64})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} = \exp(-H + c), \quad (\text{S65})$$

562 which implies that there is complete niche overlap and that fitness difference decreases
 563 with H . Since H is a monotonically decreasing function of k when $k > 2$ and $b/c \geq 2$,
 564 fitness difference will increase with k . In particular, cooperation will competitively
 565 exclude defection when $H > c$, meaning that:

$$b/c > k. \quad (\text{S66})$$

566 **Group selection.** Group selection can be described by the following payoff
 567 matrix:

$$\begin{pmatrix} (b-c)(m+n) & (b-c)m - cn \\ bn & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad (\text{S67})$$

568 where m represents the number of groups and n represents the group size. In this
 569 case, the niche and fitness differences correspond to:

$$1 - \rho = 0, \quad (\text{S68})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_2}{\kappa_1} = \exp((c-b)m + cn), \quad (\text{S69})$$

570 which implies that there is complete niche overlap. The fitness difference will increase
 571 with n but decrease with m , provided that $b > c$. In particular, cooperation will
 572 competitively exclude defection under the following condition:

$$1 + \frac{n}{m} < \frac{b}{c}. \quad (\text{S70})$$

573 **S5 Applications to evolutionary games with envi-** 574 **ronmental stochasticity**

575 Consider a competition of two strategies under stochastic payoffs:

$$\begin{pmatrix} R & S \\ T & P \end{pmatrix} + \frac{\zeta}{\sqrt{s}} \begin{pmatrix} \sigma_R & \sigma_S \\ \sigma_T & \sigma_P \end{pmatrix}, \quad (\text{S71})$$

576 Assuming weak selection $s \ll 1$, the evolution of two competing strategies in a large
 577 population can be described by the following equation:

$$\frac{dx}{dt} = sx(1-x) \left(\pi_C - \pi_D + \left(\frac{1}{2} - x \right) (\sigma_C - \sigma_D)^2 \right), \quad (\text{S72})$$

578 To simplify, we write

$$\frac{dx}{dt} = sx(1-x)G(x), \quad (\text{S73})$$

579 where

$$G(x) = \left(\pi_C - \pi_D + \left(\frac{1}{2} - x \right) (\sigma_C - \sigma_D)^2 \right). \quad (\text{S74})$$

Thus, the sign of $G(x)$ at boundary conditions determines whether a strategy can invade when the competing strategy is at equilibrium.

Note that we cannot immediately apply the original SCT presented in the main text here because $G(x)$ does not uniquely separate into two payoff measures. Instead, we can still utilize the invasion growth rate when rare and follow the same procedure. In particular, the mutual invasion condition at the monomorphic boundary can be written as:

$$0 < G(0) \quad (\text{S75})$$

$$0 < -G(1) \quad (\text{S76})$$

Exponentiating both, we can combine them into a single inequality:

$$\exp(G(1)) < 1 < \exp(G(0)) \quad (\text{S77})$$

Dividing both sides by $\exp((G(1) + G(0))/2)$, we get:

$$\exp\left(\frac{G(1) - G(0)}{2}\right) < \exp\left(-\frac{G(1) + G(0)}{2}\right) < \exp\left(\frac{G(0) - G(1)}{2}\right), \quad (\text{S78})$$

which gives us expressions for niche overlap and fitness difference:

$$\rho = \exp\left(\frac{G(1) - G(0)}{2}\right) \quad (\text{S79})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_D}{\kappa_C} = \exp\left(-\frac{G(1) + G(0)}{2}\right) \quad (\text{S80})$$

Then, by substituting expressions for $G(0)$ and $G(1)$, we obtain the following expressions for niche and fitness difference:

$$1 - \rho = 1 - \exp\left(\frac{R + P - S - T}{2} - \frac{(\sigma_R - \sigma_T)^2 + (\sigma_S - \sigma_P)^2}{4}\right) \quad (\text{S81})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_D}{\kappa_C} = \exp\left(\frac{T + P - R - S}{2} + \frac{(\sigma_R - \sigma_T)^2 - (\sigma_S - \sigma_P)^2}{4}\right) \quad (\text{S82})$$

Now, to study the interior behavior of the system, we assume that the amount of stochasticity is proportional to deterministic payoffs (Wang et al., 2025):

$$\begin{pmatrix} \sigma_R & \sigma_S \\ \sigma_T & \sigma_P \end{pmatrix} = k \begin{pmatrix} R & S \\ T & P \end{pmatrix}. \quad (\text{S83})$$

594 Then, the expression for $G(x)$ can be written as:

$$G(x) = ((R - T)x + (S - P)(1 - x)) \times \quad (\text{S84})$$

$$\left(1 + k^2 \left(\frac{1}{2} - x\right) ((R - T)x + (S - P)(1 - x))\right) \quad (\text{S85})$$

$$= ((R + P - T - S)x + (S - P)) \times \quad (\text{S86})$$

$$\left(1 + k^2 \left(\frac{1}{2} - x\right) ((R + P - T - S)x + (S - P))\right) \quad (\text{S87})$$

$$= k^2(R + P - T - S)^2 (x - x^*) \left(K + \left(\frac{1}{2} - x\right) (x - x^*)\right), \quad (\text{S88})$$

595 where $x^* = (P - S)/(R + P - T - S)$ and $K = 1/(k^2(R + P - T - S))$ for $k > 0$
 596 and $R + P - T - S \neq 0$. Therefore, this system has an internal equilibrium $x = x^*$
 597 when $0 < (P - S)/(R + P - T - S) < 1$.

598 The system can also have up to two additional equilibria when $K + \left(\frac{1}{2} - x\right) (x -$
 599 $x^*) = 0$ has positive, real roots and when these roots fall between 0 and 1. In
 600 particular, the quadratic equation can be written as:

$$x^2 - \left(\frac{1}{2} + x^*\right)x + \frac{x^*}{2} - K = 0. \quad (\text{S89})$$

601 Thus, the two solutions of the quadratic equation correspond to:

$$x = \frac{x^* + \frac{1}{2} \pm \sqrt{\left(\frac{1}{2} - x^*\right)^2 + 4K}}{2}. \quad (\text{S90})$$

602 These solutions are real when:

$$\left(\frac{1}{2} - x^*\right)^2 + 4K > 0. \quad (\text{S91})$$

603 When these solutions fall between 0 and 1, they correspond to additional internal
 604 equilibria.

605 **S6 Microbial cooperation and public goods**

606 Here, we consider a simple, phenomenological model of competition between co-
 607 operating and cheating yeast in a cooperative sucrose-metabolism system, where
 608 invertase production by cooperators allows cheaters to utilize glucose, a public good
 609 released through sucrose hydrolysis (Carlson and Botstein, 1982; Dickinson, 1998;
 610 Gore et al., 2009). We note that this is a phenomenological approximation of a
 611 public-goods game as it does not explicitly consider interactions between multiple
 612 players (Archetti and Scheuring, 2011). Nonetheless, this example provides a simple
 613 illustration of how a concave benefit function can promote coexistence.

614 Invertase production by cooperators incurs a cost c and generates a total benefit
 615 of 1 that is captured privately with efficiency ϵ . Assuming a linear relationship
 616 between glucose availability and microbial growth, the payoffs for cooperators π_C
 617 and cheaters (defectors) π_D can then be written as

$$\pi_C(f) = \epsilon + f(1 - \epsilon) - c, \quad (\text{S92})$$

$$\pi_D(f) = f(1 - \epsilon), \quad (\text{S93})$$

618 where the use of glucose depends on the fraction of cooperators f . The dynamics of
 619 cooperators and defectors are described by the following replicator equation:

$$\frac{df}{dt} = f(1 - f) [\pi_C(f) - \pi_D(f)] \quad (\text{S94})$$

$$= f(1 - f)(\epsilon - c) \quad (\text{S95})$$

620 For this linear growth model, the payoff difference is fixed to $\epsilon - c$ independent of f
 621 (Figure S1A). Therefore, cooperation is favored when efficiency is greater than the
 622 cost of cooperation, $\epsilon > c$, whereas defection is favored when the cost is greater than
 623 efficiency, $c > \epsilon$ (Gore et al., 2009).

624 Our framework allows us to reinterpret this result from the perspective of coexis-
 625 tence theory. In particular, the two strategies have no niche difference, corresponding
 626 to complete niche overlap, $\rho = 1$. In contrast, the fitness difference is determined by
 627 the balance between private efficiency and the cost of cooperation:

$$\frac{\kappa_D}{\kappa_C} = \exp(c - \epsilon). \quad (\text{S96})$$

628 Therefore, this model always predicts competitive exclusion, except in the neutral
 629 case $c = \epsilon$. The outcome is determined entirely by the fitness difference between
 630 cooperators and defectors, rather than by stabilizing niche differences.

631 In real biological systems, the effect of glucose on microbial growth follows a
 632 nonlinear relationship:

$$\pi_C(f) = [\epsilon + f(1 - \epsilon)]^\alpha - c, \quad (\text{S97})$$

$$\pi_D(f) = [f(1 - \epsilon)]^\alpha, \quad (\text{S98})$$

633 where $\alpha = 0.15$ reflects the experimental relationship between glucose and microbial
 634 growth (Gore et al., 2009). Then, the dynamics of cooperators and defectors are
 635 described by the following replicator equation:

$$\frac{df}{dt} = f(1 - f) [\{\epsilon + f(1 - \epsilon)\}^\alpha - c - \{f(1 - \epsilon)\}^\alpha]. \quad (\text{S99})$$

636 Under this nonlinear assumption, the payoff difference decreases with the cooperator
 637 fraction f , which can promote the coexistence of cooperators and defectors (Figure
 638 S1A): cooperators have a competitive advantage when rare, whereas defectors have a

639 competitive advantage when cooperators are abundant. Because the payoff difference
 640 decreases monotonically with f , this model can have at most one internal equilib-
 641 rium. Thus, while it provides a simple illustration of how concavity can promote
 642 coexistence, it cannot capture the multiple internal equilibria that can arise under
 643 more general nonlinear benefit functions, such as sigmoid functions.

644 From a coexistence-theoretic perspective, this means that nonlinear growth can
 645 generate sufficient stabilizing niche difference to overcome the fitness difference. In
 646 particular, the niche and fitness differences for this model correspond to:

$$1 - \rho = 1 - \exp\left(\frac{1 - \epsilon^\alpha - (1 - \epsilon)^\alpha}{2}\right), \quad (\text{S100})$$

$$\frac{\kappa_D}{\kappa_C} = \exp\left(c + \frac{(1 - \epsilon)^\alpha - 1 - \epsilon^\alpha}{2}\right). \quad (\text{S101})$$

647 These expressions clarify the separate roles of cost, efficiency, and nonlinearity. For
 648 example, the cost of cooperation does not affect niche difference and only affects
 649 fitness difference. Instead, niche difference is generated by the concave relationship
 650 between glucose availability and microbial growth, which increases from 0 to $1 -$
 651 $\exp(-1/2)$ as α goes from 1 to 0 (Figure S1B,C). In contrast, as $\alpha \rightarrow 0^+$, the fitness
 652 difference approaches

$$\log(\kappa_D/\kappa_C) \rightarrow c - \frac{1}{2}, \quad (\text{S102})$$

653 which no longer depends on the private capture efficiency ϵ (Figure S1C). Thus,
 654 strong concavity not only generates stabilizing niche differences, but also acts as an
 655 equalizing mechanism (Figure S1C). Such stabilizing mechanisms are key ingredients
 656 for coexistence of competing strategies.

Supplementary Figure

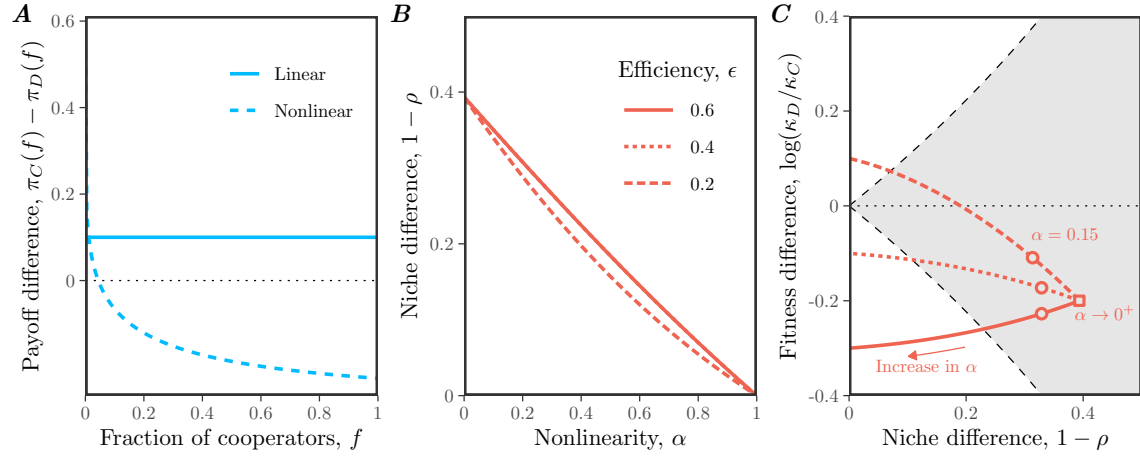


Figure S1: **Effects of nonlinear microbial growth on coexistence of cooperation and defection.** (A) Payoff differences between cooperation and defection for linear and nonlinear models of microbial growth. In panel A, we assumed $\epsilon = 0.4$, $c = 0.3$, and $\alpha = 0.15$ for illustrative purposes. (B) Effect of nonlinearity α on niche difference $1 - \rho$. Each line assumes a different value of efficiency ϵ . Note that lines for $\epsilon = 0.6$ and $\epsilon = 0.4$ are nearly overlapping and are indistinguishable. (C) Effect of nonlinearity α on both niche difference $1 - \rho$ and fitness difference $\log(\kappa_D/\kappa_C)$. The gray shaded area represents the coexistence regime. The square represents the condition when $\alpha \rightarrow 0^+$. The circles represent the condition when $\alpha = 0.15$, which correspond to the experimental relationship between glucose and microbial growth (Gore et al., 2009). In panels B and C, we assumed $c = 0.3$, while allowing ϵ and α to vary.

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